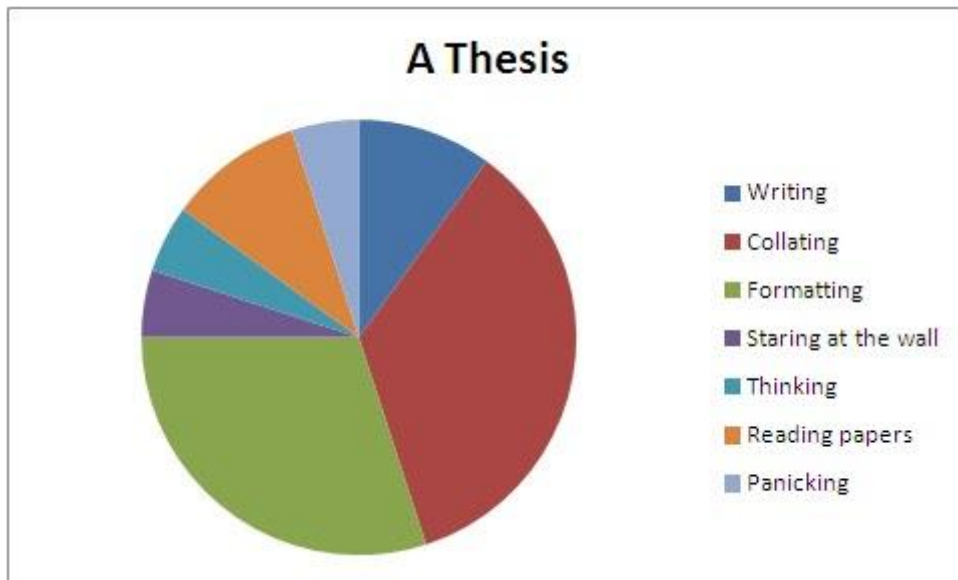


Lesson 7: Writing the Discussion and Conclusion sections

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1. Objectives

In this unit you are going to:

1. Examine the Discussion and Conclusion sections of some texts.
2. Consider what is included in those sections.
3. Examine hedging language that is used in these sections.
4. Explore a variety of hedging and boosting techniques that are used to soften claims made in these sections.
5. Focus on the use of relative clauses and the comma.

Table of Contents

Lesson 7: Writing the Discussion and Conclusion sections	1
1. Objectives	1
2. Writing the Discussion and Conclusion sections.....	2
2.1 Structure and contents of the Discussion and Conclusion section(s)	2
2.2 Language use in the Discussion and Conclusion section	6
2.3 Writing the Conclusion section	10
3. Language notes: Relative clauses	15

4. Language notes: General rules for the use of commas	16
5. Assignment 6 and portfolio.....	17
7. Bibliography	19

2. Writing the Discussion and Conclusion sections

In a previous lesson we focussed on cohesion and coherence in a paper. For the overall text cohesion and coherence, it is important that the **Introduction** and **Discussion/Conclusion are clearly linked**, often mirroring each other. The Introduction poses certain questions and aims, as well as indicates a gap in the research (mostly). The Discussion/Conclusions section should answer these questions and show how your study addresses these initial questions by saying what the findings indicate about the answers. Establishing a clear link gives a satisfying end to the research narrative in the article. (The Methods and Results sections are linked in a similar way.)

Many scientists first read the abstract of a paper, and if that is interesting, then skip to the Discussion section. If the Discussion is not convincing or stimulating, it does not matter how the experiments were performed or what results were reported. A good Discussion gives meaning to your study and adds a strong finish – just like the final argument in the courtroom!



Now examine some theses/articles.

- Are there Discussion and Conclusion sections? Are they separate sections or combined into one section? Are there other sections that interpret the results of the study? What are they called?
- How long are these sections and what do they contain?
- What are the differences between the Results and the Discussion sections?

2.1 Structure and contents of the Discussion and Conclusion section(s)

The generic thesis structure corresponds largely with the structure of the research proposal and with that of an academic article – the contents are just much more elaborate. In research articles, the last two sections, Interpretation/Discussion and Conclusions/Implications/ Recommendations are often combined into one final section called 'Discussion'.

Guidelines for writing specify that the Results section should present only results and not contain any interpretation of the results. However, if you have tried to stick to this rule, you would know how hard it is not to comment on the results when you present them. If the guidelines for your thesis, paper or article do not require you to split the two sections, you can comment on the results as you present them. However, if they should be split into 2

separate sections, it is a challenge to determine what to include in each, what level of generality is appropriate for each, and what type of commentary works best in each section (Swales and Feak, 2012:306).

Discussion sections differ from Results sections in that the Discussion **interprets** the data and **explains** why the **results are meaningful** in relation to **previous, related work** and the **hypothesis or research question** that was explored (Swales and Feak, 2012:309).

In the Discussion section, the results of the research and their implications are considered. Discussion sections are often the most complex sections to write in terms of their elements. They normally centre around an important finding or statement of result. Because there is mostly more than one result, the section could include several cycles of discussions about various findings. Note that the language use is very cautious or tentative: hedging is used – a language feature we will attend to in this lesson.

In the lesson on the Introduction section, we concluded that the structure of the Introduction was an upside-down triangle, moving from the general to the specific. The Discussion section is structured in the opposite way, like a right-side-up triangle, beginning with interpretation of your specific results and moving to general implications, as seen in the figure below.

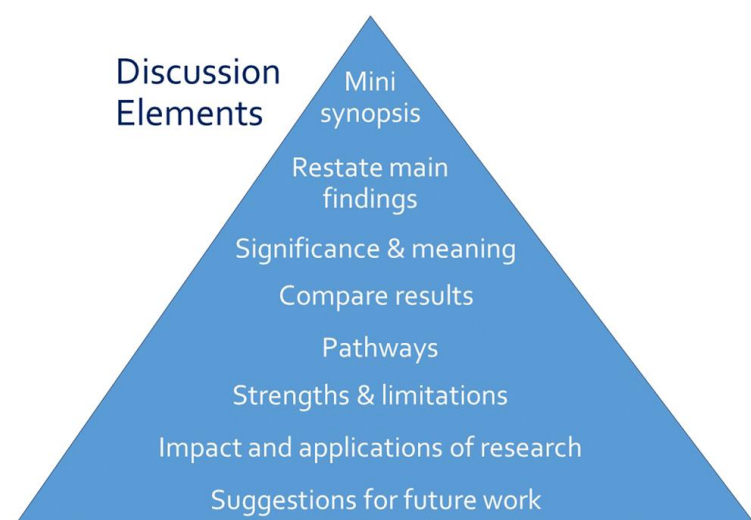


Figure 1: Major elements of the discussion section of an original research article. Often, the elements overlap. (Busse and August 2020)

Some of the elements included in the Discussion section are:

- References to some of the literature
- References to the study aims, hypothesis or research question
- Restating the result or some pertinent results

- Indicating the results that confirm or contradict previous findings
- Offering explanations of the findings
- Advising cautious interpretation of the findings, using hedging language (see below)
- Commenting on and noting implications of the findings (could be part of conclusion)
- Making suggestions for future research (often in Conclusion section)

In the **Interpretation/ Discussion** section the results of the study are interpreted and put in context, while a justification is also given for the interpretation. There could be a further synthesis of the results in tables, graphs and illustrations.

A separate Conclusion section is seldom needed: it is often integrated in the Discussion section, but there is no consensus about that across disciplines. The **Conclusion** section does four things: it reiterates the research question and its answer, states the significance of that answer, identifies and discusses directions for future research and practice, as well as outlines, limitations and issues that were beyond the scope of the study. (The limitations might also be stated under a separate heading.)

Let us walk through the Discussion and Conclusion section together (*cf.* Busse and August 2020):

1. This section typically begins with a restatement of the main findings, which can usually be accomplished with a few carefully crafted sentences.
2. After restating the main findings, move on to interpreting the significance of these results, focusing on general applications of the study's specific findings too.
3. Then, compare these study findings to other research. Do they agree or disagree with those from other studies? Does this study shed further light on accepted theories? Explain your findings against the background of scientific literature, focusing on pathways or mechanisms that might be linked to or cause the results.
4. Candidly report and discuss the strengths and limitations of your study to help the readers interpret your research findings correctly. Some journals require separate section headings, while some prefer having these limitations embedded in paragraphs.
5. Summarise the potential impact and applications of your research study. How could the results be used to design an intervention? What implications might the study have for clinical protocols or public policy?
6. Conclude the discussion with specific suggestions for future work. Illuminate specific remaining gaps in the literature that necessitate further study. Instead of stating too generally that 'further research is necessary', rather provide specific and practical recommendations for further studies.

When comparisons across disciplines are made, the following **MOVES** seem to be common in the final sections of the article (Swales and Feak, 2012:368):

1. *Move 1*: Background information (research purposes, theory, methodology) (mostly dealt with in the Introduction and Methods sections, but the Discussion could refer back to these if necessary)
2. *Move 2* : Summarizing and reporting key results (mostly in the Results section, but synopsis of pertinent results could form part of the Discussion)
3. *Move 3*: Commenting on key results (making claims, explaining the results, comparing the new work with the previous studies, offering alternative explanations)
4. *Move 4*: Stating the limitations of the study
5. *Move 5*: Making recommendations for future implementation and/or for future research

Moves 3-5 above are mostly included in the Discussion and Conclusion sections of a paper or thesis. Note the essential features of a Discussion/Conclusion section below.

In line with the above moves and steps, these are the **essential features and components of a Discussion/Conclusion section** (Day and Gastel, 2011:73):

1. Present the principles, relationships and generalisations shown by the results. Do not repeat the results: discuss them.
2. Point out exceptions or lack of correlation. Do not be dishonest or cover up data that does not fit. Your reviewers will spot such cheating and point it out if you do not!
3. Show how your results and interpretations agree or contrast with previously published studies.
4. Discuss the theoretical implications and practical applications of your work confidently enough, but cautiously.
5. State your conclusions as clearly as possible.
6. Summarize your evidence for each conclusion.

2.2 Language use in the Discussion and Conclusion section

In the previous lesson we considered two elements of **data commentary** – how the results are discussed verbally:

1. **Location** statements referring to visuals, such as ‘Table 6 depicts ...’ followed by **summary** statements, for example ‘... respondents’ self-reported use of online gambling sites...’.
2. **Highlighting** statements that follow the location and summary statements and highlight some aspect of the data, such as ‘As can be seen, ...’.

The **third aspect** of data commentary (see above), and the one that is used mostly in the discussion section, comprises **discussions of implications, problems, exceptions, recommendations, or other interesting and relevant aspects** of the data (Swales and Feak, 2012:144). This section is characterized by some typical language use features.



Let us now consider the Discussion sections of some theses or papers.

- a. Write down at least 2 **claims** that the authors make about the results of their research.
- b. Are some of the claims stronger and others weaker? If so, how do the authors express the strength or weakness of claims? Write down 2 ways.
- c. What **verb uses dominate** in this section? List at least 5 verbs here.
- d. What **degree of certainty** is expressed by the verbs? Write down verbs that express strong possibility, relatively strong and weaker possibility.
- e. How strongly do the authors of the thesis/paper seem to **identify themselves** with the claims? Do they seem to **distance** themselves from the claims they make? If so, how do they do that? Write down some word choices.
- f. Do they **link** their claims to **previous research**? If so, how? How do they indicate a definite or a less likely link?
- g. How are the **comparisons** made? Write down some data comparisons.
(For example: ‘Girls spend less time playing online games than boys do.’ Or ‘Boys spend 80% of their time on digital devices playing online games, whereas girls spend more than 70% of their digital time chatting online.’)
- h. Do the authors make **generalisations and extrapolations** (inferences based on known facts) based on their data? What verbs do they use to do that? Are the generalisations or extrapolations grounded in reasonable evidence?
- i. Do they indicate any **exceptions** to the claims/generalisations that they made? What words do they use to do that?
- j. Do some general trends in the language use emerge? What are they? Compare your findings with those of your colleagues.

2.2.1 Hedging: expressing the claims based on your results cautiously

‘It is important for students to learn to be confidently uncertain’.

(Skelton, 1988, in Swales & Feak, 2012:156)

When writing data commentary, it is important not to overstate one’s claims. The researcher’s good judgement should be presented with good judgement, showing caution and a critical observation of the data! Expressing this kind of **caution** is called **‘hedging’**, which means qualifying, softening or moderating a claim in various ways. Hedging forms an essential part of academic writing. If one makes claims that leave no room for possible error, one opens oneself up to a lot of possible criticism. Below are some ways in which one can ensure that the claims and generalisations made in the discussion and conclusion sections are not too strong (adapted from Swales & Feak, 2012:158-).

Likelihood

To express the **likelihood** of a claim and one’s **degree of commitment** to the claim, one could make use of various **modal verbs** such as ‘could’, ‘may’ or ‘might’. Using modal verbs is a widely used hedging technique to weaken or strengthen a claim. Look at the following example and decide how the strength of the claim changes:

1. The resulting imprecisions obtained in the calculation of adjusted means **affected** the power of the model.
2. The resulting imprecisions obtained in the calculation of adjusted means **could have affected** the power of the model.
3. The resulting imprecisions obtained in the calculation of adjusted means **may have affected** the power of the model.
4. The resulting imprecisions obtained in the calculation of adjusted **means might have affected** the power of the model.



- What changes the strength of the claim in the sentences above?
- Which of these claims is the strongest?
- Which is the most cautious?
- Find examples of verbs that express various degrees of likelihood in some theses/articles.

Now consider these sentences. How is the claim weakened or strengthened (boosted)?

5. It is **clear** that different weather conditions affected the noise sources.
6. It is **likely** that different weather conditions affected the noise sources.

7. It is **very probable/highly likely** that different weather conditions affected the noise sources.
8. It is **possible** that different weather conditions affected the noise sources.
9. It is **unlikely** that different weather conditions affected the noise sources.

Notice that the structure 'It is... that...' is frequently used.

One could also use **various adjectives** to qualify the strength of a claim, for example:

10. There is a **strong/slight** possibility that different weather conditions affected the noise sources.
11. There is **little** possibility that different weather conditions affected the noise sources.

(NOTE: NOT 'A' LITTLE.)

Verbs such as 'seem' or 'appear to', or verbs that make a weaker claim, can also be used in cautious expression, for example:

12. Different weather conditions *seem to /appear to* affect the noise sources.
13. The results *indicate/establish* that there is a link between smoking and lung cancer.
14. The survey results *suggest/show* that ...
15. The latest series of studies *challenge/question* the value of...
16. Changes in ambient temperature may have *influenced/distorted* the results.
17. Previous studies *failed/forgot* to consider the change in...

Some more **verbs that are useful in hedging** because they are weaker in meaning than strong verbs such as *conclude, confirm, prove and demonstrate*, are *estimate, suggest, indicate, appear to, seem to, tend to and contribute to*.

Alternatively, one could distance oneself by referring to other studies, researchers or experts, thereby softening a claim. Remember to cite the studies or persons you are referring to! Consider these examples:

18. Based on the limited data available (citation), different weather conditions affect the noise sources.
19. According to this preliminary study (citation), different weather conditions affect the noise sources.
20. According to some earlier studies (citation)/In view of several scholars, the different weather conditions affect the noise sources.

Making comparisons

In the Discussion section one should refrain from simply listing several sentences describing data in a way that might imply that the reader is not able to read the numbers. Instead, one could make comparisons such as:

- Fewer home-owners than tenants reported dissatisfaction...
- More tenants than home-owners reported dissatisfaction...
- Not as many home-owners reported...
- Almost twice as many tenants than home-owners reported...
- Nearly three times as many tenants reported...
- Nearly the same number of tenants and home-owners reported...
- The percentage of home-owners who reported satisfaction was over twice that of tenants.
- The percentage of tenants who reported dissatisfaction was over two times higher than that of home-owners.
- The percentage of tenants who reported dissatisfaction exceeded that of home-owners.

Remember than one says 'more/less than' but 'as many/much as' when making comparisons; generally, we use 'than' when comparing things that are different from each other, and 'as...as' when comparing things that are the same.

Let us briefly explore the **use of few/little and many/much**.

- **'Few' and 'many' are used with countable nouns**, such as 'few/many studies'. The comparative form of 'few' is 'fewer' and the superlative form is 'fewest'. The comparative form of 'many' is 'more' and the superlative form is 'the most'.
- **'Little' and 'much' are used with uncountable nouns**, such as 'little/much information'. The comparative form of 'little' is 'less' and the superlative form is 'the least'. The comparative form of 'much' is 'more' and the superlative form is 'the most'.
- 'Little' and 'a little' are not the same. 'Little' means 'almost nothing'. "A little" means some, though not much.

The Academic Phrasebank contains many examples of phrases to use when making comparisons and contrasting information in this section

(<https://www.phrasebank.manchester.ac.uk/compare-and-contrast/>).

2.3 Writing the Conclusion section

In the Conclusion section, you have the opportunity to make a good final impression. The Conclusion section is **short and summarises** the main areas covered in the scientific text, so in that sense it **looks back** at the paper, before it gives a final comment on it. It often comments on the significance of the findings. In addition, it **looks forward** by including suggestions for improvement and making recommendations for future work. Conclusions may be optional in research articles if consolidation of the study and general implications are covered in the Discussion section. However, they are usually expected in theses and essays. Keep to the requirements of your supervisor and the journal you are aiming to publish in.

The Conclusion section could include (some of) these moves:

- Restating the aims of the study
- Summarising main research findings
- Stating implications for the field of study
- Explaining the significance or contribution of the study
- Recognising the limitations of the study (often while stating a significant finding)
- Making recommendations for future research work, practice or policy

In this section, especially when restating the study aims (or sometimes when making recommendations), it is very common to refer to use metadiscourse such as 'this study', this 'project', 'the present research', but writers also use the personal pronoun 'we'. Examples:

This study set out to ...

This paper argued that ...

This essay has discussed the reasons for ...

In this investigation, the aim was to assess ...

The aim of the present research was to examine ...

The purpose of the current study was to determine ...

We examined...

We assessed...

We aimed to determine...

We suggest that before X is introduced, a study similar to this one should be carried out on ...



A note on the use of the word 'research': in English, research is a mass noun that does NOT have a plural form, so ~~researches~~ is wrong. If you want to use a plural form, you can write 'research studies/projects/investigations', for example.

A 'work' in English is normally a very long and exhaustive text, such as a literary work (e.g. the complete works of Shakespeare), so an article would not normally be referred to as a 'work'.

While stating the implications of the study in the Discussion section, writers make general claims based on specific findings in the study. Generalisations can be used to develop a point for which support is provided or to draw a conclusion from various pieces of information. Such generalisations should be supported by reasonable evidence and stated cautiously to make them acceptable to readers. An *extrapolation* could be seen as 'an educated guess or a hypothesis. When you make an extrapolation, you take facts and observations about a present or known situation and use them to make a prediction about what might eventually happen.' (<http://www.vocabulary.com/dictionary/extrapolation>)

Here it is important to distinguish between justified and unjustified generalisations. Justified generalisations are based on robust results, whereas unjustified ones tend to make claims that are not based on data or that are too strong. An example of a justified generalisation could be

'The majority of mobile phone users experience neck aches or numbness, either temporarily or permanently.' (<http://www.forbes.com/sites/nextavenue/2013/06/07/how-texting-can-give-you-a-permanent-pain-in-the-neck/>)

On the other hand, statements such as the following are overgeneralisations and should be avoided in academic writing:

'All Americans have bad eating habits.' Or

'Most Japanese are rude tourists.'

When generalisations based on data are made in the text, they should be qualified, that is, they should be put in the right context and stated with the necessary caution. In order to do that, one could make use of certain verbs, qualifying adjectives and adverbs of frequency, for example.

Some words that are commonly used when making generalisations are:

Overall, On the whole, In general,	In the main, Generally,	With ... exception The overall results indicate...
--	----------------------------	---

Examples from the *Academic Phrasebank*:

In general, therefore, it seems that ...
 The results of this study indicate that ...
 These findings suggest that, in general ...
 The findings of this study suggest that ...
 Taken together, these results suggest that ...
 An implication of this is the possibility that ...
 The evidence from this study suggests that ...
 Overall, this study strengthens the idea that ...
 The current data highlight the importance of ...
 The findings of this research provide insights for ...

One could also limit the subject. One could, for example, soften the claim in 'Peace studies and mediation solve major disputes.' by limiting the subject in one of these ways:

Some applications of / Various kinds of / In many parts of the world peace studies and mediation solve major disputes.

Another way to soften generalisations is to add **limitations and exceptions**, for example by adding 'with the exception of', 'apart from' or 'except for'.

Some **typical formulations of limitations and exceptions** are (Swales and Feak, 2012: 372-3):

- It should be noted that this study has been primarily concerned with...
- This analysis has concentrated on...
- The findings of this study are restricted to...
- This study has addressed only the question of...
- The limitations of this study are clear: ...
- We would like to point out that we have not...
- However, the findings do not imply...
- The results of this study cannot be taken as evidence for...
- Unfortunately, we are unable to determine from this data...
- The lack of... means that we cannot be certain...

- Notwithstanding its limitations, this study does suggest...
- Despite its preliminary character, the research reported here would seem to indicate...
- However exploratory, this study may offer some insight into...

Many more examples can be found on the Academic Phrasebank site.

In order to express the **amount of certainty** with which a conclusion is drawn, one could use words such as the following:

Certain (positive) (These words **boost** the conclusion that was drawn by conveying that the author is confident about the strength of the claim.) evidently/obviously/ clearly

- undeniable/undeniably/there is no doubt that
- full consensus about
- conclusively proven/has been established
- confidently predict
- well-documented
- we can safely assume
- convincing argument/convincingly argues
- there is (very) little doubt that

Uncertain (These words convey that the author is not very certain about the claim.)

- hypothetically/ theoretically
- arguable
- not necessarily
- controversial
- debatable
- unreliable
- claim

The Conclusion section comments on and notes implications of the findings, and mostly points to further research.

Some typical expressions that could be used here are:

- There are still many unanswered questions about ...
- Despite these promising results, further work is required to establish...
- Further research should be undertaken to investigate...
- A further study with more focus on X is therefore suggested...
- Further studies, which take these variables into account, need to be undertaken.



Final comment: You don't get a second chance to make a final impression!

Even if you do not feel very confident about the conclusions, it is important to end this section on a positive note, and to sound confident, even when you are expressing limitations. Do not end on a weak note! At the same time, be factual and not boastful about what you have done. The final sentence often points towards future research. Here are some examples from research articles:

- This pioneer study showed interesting results and encourages further investigation in noise exposure in low- and middle-income countries.
- In summary, our study shows that IL-6₁ induces the production of known inflammatory markers and appears to cause an increase in the size of atherosclerotic lesions in mice. Since IL-6₁ binds to a different receptor family than C-reactive protein in both mice and humans, there are now at least 2 mechanisms that must be considered when developing new strategies to reduce the incidence and severity of atherosclerotic disease.
- In conclusion, our findings show that long-term exposure to fine particulate air pollution is associated with natural-cause mortality, even at concentration ranges well below the present European annual mean limit value.

See the next page for language use explanations and exercises

3. Language notes: Relative clauses

Relative clauses include additional information in a sentence. There are two types of relative clauses, namely **defining relative clauses**, where the information defines the noun and is essential to the meaning of the sentence, and **non-defining relative clauses**, where the information added might be useful but the sentence would still be meaningful without it.

Examples:

- Leonardo Da Vinci was the first person *who designed a helicopter-like flying machine*. (defining relative clause)
- Leonardo Da Vinci, *whose designs were spectacularly ahead of his time*, was famous as a painter, sculptor, architect, musician, mathematician, engineer, inventor, anatomist, geologist, cartographer, botanist and writer. (non-defining relative clause)

The relative pronouns '*which*', '*that*' and '*who*' are used in **defining relative clauses**.

'*That*' is mostly used in defining relative clauses that define or differentiate the person or thing they refer to, for example:

- I'm talking about the phone *which/that* I bought last week.
- The first lecturer *who/that* I met came from Finland.

These pronouns can be left out when they relate to the object of a sentence.

- I'm talking about the phone I bought last week.
- The first lecturer I met came from Finland.

Other relative pronouns that can introduce a defining relative clause are '*who*', '*whose*', '*whom*' and '*which*', but **without any commas**. '*Whose*' could refer to people or things. '*Whom*' is the object form of '*who*' and is used mostly in formal writing. '*Who*' or '*that*' can be used to refer to a person, whereas '*that*' or '*which*' refer to things.

Examples:

- The protesters *whom/that* we interviewed all complained about the new government.
- A student *whose* grades fulfil the requirements is allowed to attend the course.
- Hospitals are employers *whose* staff often has to work through the night.

Note that NO COMMAS are used with defining relative clauses.

Non-defining relative clauses add non-essential information to a sentence, for example

- The phone, *which* has been on the market for a month, is our latest model.
- Jojo Moyes, *whose* novel '*Me before you*' was on the best-seller lists for weeks, is one of only a few authors to have won the '*Romantic Novel of the Year Award*' twice.

We usually use **commas** to separate such a clause from the rest of the sentence. In non-defining relative clauses, 'who' and 'which' cannot be left out or changed to 'that'

So, one can use 'which' for defining relative clauses (without commas) or for non-defining relative clauses (with commas). 'That' is only used in defining relative clauses.

4. Language notes: General rules for the use of commas

The basic role of a comma is an interrupter, separating a sentence into distinct parts. Commas separate the main elements of a sentence from one another, set off elements in parenthesis from the rest of the sentence, separate elements in a list or series, and set off dialogue or quotations.

Phrases beginning with 'including', 'according', etc. are preceded by a comma and sometimes bracketed off with commas:

- The European Parliament discussed several matters relating to climate change, including increased use of renewable energies.

Commas are used to separate items in a series or list, but they are often not used between the last two items.

- The researchers came from Spain, Italy, Austria and Switzerland.

If the last two items are long, a comma might be used:

- He spent the first semester collecting data, interpreting results, and having discussions with experts in the field.

Commas are used to separate two or more qualitative adjectives:

- The students had to sit through several long, boring and repetitive lectures.

Commas also separate classifying adjectives if the adjectives all refer to the same class:

- The course materials include Swiss, German and Austrian texts.

If the adjectives are of different types (for example qualitative and classifying adjectives) they do not need to be separated by commas, but commas are still frequently used:

- The equipment included large plastic pipettes.

Commas are used to separate non-defining relative clauses from the main part of the sentence (see Language notes: relative clauses above).

- The laboratory, which is located in the new building, is run by two neuroscientists.

Commas are used to separate 'sentence adverbs' from the rest of the sentence:

- The results showed, *surprisingly*, that X was not dependent on Y.
- Addition of X, *however*, did not influence the structure of Y.
- *However*, addition of X did not influence the structure of Y.
- Addition of X did not influence the structure of Y, *however*.

Commas should NOT be used to link two sentences together, as such use results in a **comma splice mistake**. Rather separate the sentences by means of a full stop or a semi-colon.

- ~~All contributions are welcomed, no donation is too small.~~
- ~~The first experiment was unsuccessful, on the other hand, the second one soon yielded the expected results.~~

These sentences should rather be written as

- All contributions are welcomed; no donation is too small.
- All contributions are welcomed. No donation is too small.
- The first experiment was unsuccessful; on the other hand, the second one soon yielded the expected results.
- The first experiment was unsuccessful. On the other hand, the second one soon yielded the expected results.

Do not use commas with defining relative clauses, as explained above.

5. Assignment 6 and portfolio

Portfolio



To receive the 2 credits for the course, upload a **portfolio** that consists of ONE document in WORD format, containing:

1. the **first, unreviewed version** of each assignment, followed by
2. the **final improved version** of
3. each of the **FOUR reviewed assignments**,
4. without any comments or markup, apart from your indications of the moves or steps required for the assignments.

Name the portfolio as follows: Surname name portfolio

Assignment 6A : Discussion & conclusion (See document 'Instructions for assignments')

Write the **Interpretation /Discussion AND/OR Conclusions /Implications /Recommendations** section of your thesis. You could also combine the two sections into one.

(The next assignment will be an Abstract; you can choose between this assignment and the next one – or do both, but only one will be reviewed.)

In the Interpretation/ Discussion section the results of the study should be interpreted and put in context, while a justification is also given for your interpretation. There could be a further synthesis of the results in tables, graphs and illustrations.

AND/OR

In the Conclusion section, the implications of the results of the study for future research and practice should be discussed. In addition, limitations and issues beyond the scope of the study should be outlined.

The assignment should demonstrate your ability to discuss your results confidently, while using hedging techniques to express claims and generalisations.

Ensure that the text you submit is cohesive and coherent by using the devices we discussed and practised.

Highlight the main results, justification, implications and issues beyond the scope of the study, as well as the use of hedging techniques and devices to increase cohesion in coherence in the text.

Follow the six steps in Discussion and Conclusion (Busse and August above).

The word limit for this assignment is **250 words**.

Follow the review process and the naming conventions, adding to the name of the assignment if it is the discussion, conclusion or abstract.

Assignments 6A and 6B have the same due date.

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